# Polynomials, Exponentials and Logarithms

Last modified: 2026-11-11 10:23:18 (PST)

## Polynomials

**Exercise 0.1** (Reading a polynomial)**.** Let $f(x) = 3x^4 - x + 7$.

1. Write $f$ in the form $a_n x^n + a_{n-1}x^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 x + a_0$, listing every coefficient $a_4, a_3, a_2, a_1, a_0$.
2. What is the degree of $f$, and what is its leading coefficient?

Solution

*Solution* 0.1.

1. $f(x) = 3x^4 + 0 \cdot x^3 + 0 \cdot x^2 + (-1) \cdot x + 7$, so $a_4 = 3$, $a_3 = 0$, $a_2 = 0$, $a_1 = -1$, and $a_0 = 7$. Powers of $x$ that do not appear have coefficient 0.
2. The highest power with a nonzero coefficient is $x^4$, so the degree is 4 and the leading coefficient is $a_4 = 3$.

**Definition 0.1** (Constant function)**.** A function $f : A \to B$ is **constant** if there is some $c \in B$ with $f(x) = c$ for all $x \in A$.

**Example 0.1** (Constant and non-constant functions)**.**

- $f(x) = 7$ on $\mathbb{R}$ is constant, with $c = 7$.
- $f(x) = x^2$ on $\mathbb{R}$ is not constant: $f(0) = 0$ but $f(1) = 1$.

**Definition 0.2** (Polynomial)**.** A **polynomial** (in one variable $x$) [1] is a function $f : \mathbb{R} \to \mathbb{R}$ that can be written as

$$f(x) = a_n x^n + a_{n-1} x^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 x + a_0$$

for some integer $n \geq 0$ and constants $a_0, a_1, \ldots, a_n \in \mathbb{R}$ with $a_n \neq 0$. The terms of $f$ are $a_n x^n, \ldots, a_1 x, a_0$.

ℹ Remark (Constant and zero polynomials)

*Remark* 0.1 (Constant and zero polynomials). A constant function $f(x) = 7$ is a polynomial with $n = 0$ and $a_0 = 7$. The requirement $a_n \neq 0$ means this definition covers nonzero polynomials only: the zero function $f(x) = 0$ is excluded here, because it has no nonzero coefficient to serve as $a_n$.

**Definition 0.3** (Coefficients of a polynomial)**.** The constants $a_0, a_1, \ldots, a_n$ of a polynomial $f$ (Definition 0.2) are the **coefficients** of $f$, with $a_k$ the coefficient of $x^k$.

**Definition 0.4** (Degree of a polynomial)**.** Let $f(x) = a_n x^n + \cdots + a_1 x + a_0$ be a polynomial with $a_n \neq 0$. The integer $n$ is the **degree** of $f$.

**Example 0.2** (Degrees of some polynomials)**.**

- $f(x) = 4x$ has degree 1.
- $f(x) = 5 - 2x^2 + x^3$ has degree 3: the degree is the highest power with a nonzero coefficient, not the power in the first term written.
- A constant polynomial $f(x) = 7$ has degree 0.

**Definition 0.5** (Leading coefficient)**.** Let $f(x) = a_n x^n + \cdots + a_1 x + a_0$ be a polynomial of degree $n$. The constant $a_n$ is the **leading coefficient** of $f$.

**Example 0.3** (Leading coefficients)**.**

- $f(x) = 5 - 2x^2 + x^3$ has degree 3, so its leading coefficient is $a_3 = 1$, not the 5 written first.
- $f(x) = 3 - x^2$ has leading coefficient $a_2 = -1$.

**Definition 0.6** (Quadratic polynomial)**.** A polynomial of degree 2, $f(x) = a_2x^2+a_1x+a_0$ with $a_2 \neq 0$, is a **quadratic** [2] polynomial.

**Definition 0.7** (Cubic polynomial)**.** A polynomial of degree 3 is a **cubic** polynomial.

**Example 0.4** (Quadratic and cubic polynomials)**.**

- $$\begin{aligned} f(x) &= (x-2)^2 \\ &= x^2 - 4x + 4 \end{aligned}$$

  is quadratic, by Remark 5 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums with $a = x$ and $b = 2$.
- $f(x) = x^3 - 3x$ is cubic.
- $f(x) = 4x + 1$ is neither: it has degree 1.

**Definition 0.8** (Parabola)**.** A **parabola** [3] is the graph of a quadratic polynomial (Definition 0.6).

**Example 0.5** (The parabola $y = x^2$)**.** The graph of $f(x) = x^2$ is a parabola. It contains the points $(-1, 1)$, $(0, 0)$ and $(2, 4)$, and its lowest point is $(0, 0)$, since $x^2 \geq 0$ for every $x$.

**Definition 0.9** (Monomial (power product))**.** A **monomial**, also called a **power product** [4], in the variables $x_1, \dots, x_p$ is an expression

$$x_1^{a_1} x_2^{a_2} \cdots x_p^{a_p} \tag{1}$$

that multiplies powers of those variables, whose exponents $a_1, \dots, a_p$ are nonnegative integers.
Each $a_j = 0$ contributes the factor $x_j^0 = 1$ (zero exponent).

**Example 0.6** (Which expressions are monomials)**.** Take the four variables $x_1, x_2, x_3, x_4$.

- $x_1^3 x_4$ is a monomial, with exponents $(a_1, a_2, a_3, a_4) = (3, 0, 0, 1)$.
- The constant 1 is the monomial whose exponents are all 0.
- $x_1/x_2 = x_1 x_2^{-1}$ is not a monomial, because the exponent of $x_2$ is negative.
- $\sqrt{x_3} = x_3^{1/2}$ is not a monomial, because its exponent is not an integer.

- $x_1 + x_4$ is not a monomial: it adds two monomials rather than multiplying powers.

**Definition 0.10** (Degree of a monomial)**.** The **degree** of the monomial $x_1^{a_1} x_2^{a_2} \cdots x_p^{a_p}$ is the sum of its exponents, $a_1 + a_2 + \cdots + a_p$ [4].

**Example 0.7** (Degrees of some monomials)**.**

- $x_1^3 x_4$ has degree $3 + 1 = 4$.
- $x_2^2 x_3^5$ has degree $2 + 5 = 7$.
- The constant monomial 1 has degree 0.
- With one variable, the monomial $x^n$ has degree $n$, which is the degree of the one-term polynomial $f(x) = x^n$.

## Affine and linear functions of one variable

**Definition 0.1** (Affine function of one variable)**.** A function $f : \mathbb{R} \to \mathbb{R}$ is **affine** [5] if there are numbers $m$ and $b$ such that

$$f(x) = mx + b \quad \text{for all } x \in \mathbb{R}$$

**Definition 0.2** (Slope)**.** In the formula $f(x) = mx + b$ for an affine function $f$ (Definition 0.1), $m$ is called the **slope** of $f$ [6].

**Definition 0.3** (Intercept, y-intercept)**.** The **intercept** (or **y-intercept**) of a function $f$ whose domain contains 0 is $f(0)$, the height at which the graph of $f$ crosses the vertical axis.

**Definition 0.4** (Intercept term)**.** When a function is written as terms added together, its **intercept term** is the term with no factor of the input. When every other term has a factor of the input, the intercept (Definition 0.3) of the function is this term.

**Definition 0.5** (x-intercept)**.** An **x-intercept** of a function $f$ is an input $x$ with $f(x) = 0$, a point where the graph of $f$ crosses the horizontal axis. A function can have no x-intercept, one, or many.

Remark (Intercepts of an affine function)

*Remark* 0.1 (Intercepts of an affine function). For an affine function $f(x) = mx + b$ (Definition 0.1):

- the intercept term is $b$,
- the intercept is $f(0) = b$,
- if $m \neq 0$, the only x-intercept is $-b/m$.

**Definition 0.6** (Linear function of one variable)**.** A function $f : \mathbb{R} \to \mathbb{R}$ is **linear** [7] if it is affine (Definition 0.1) with intercept 0; that is, if there is a number $m$ such that

$$f(x) = mx \quad \text{for all } x \in \mathbb{R}$$

**Theorem 0.1** (Intercept and slope of an affine function)**.** *Let $f(x) = mx + b$ be an affine function (Definition 0.1).*

1. *The intercept is the value at zero: $f(0) = b$.*
2. *The slope is the change in $f$ per unit change in $x$: for any $x_1 \neq x_2$,*
$$\frac{f(x_2) - f(x_1)}{x_2 - x_1} = m$$
3. *So $f$ determines its slope and intercept: if also $f(x) = m'x + b'$ for all $x$, then $m' = m$ and $b' = b$.*

Proof

*Proof.* **Part 1.**

$$\begin{aligned} f(0) &= m \cdot 0 + b && \text{(Definition 0.1)} \\ &= 0 + b && \text{(any number times 0 is 0)} \\ &= b + 0 && \text{(Theorem 5 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums)} \\ &= b && \text{(Theorem 4 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums)} \end{aligned}$$

**Part 2.** First the numerator:

$$
\begin{aligned}
f(x_2) - f(x_1) &= (mx_2 + b) - (mx_1 + b) && \text{(Definition 0.1)} \\
&= mx_2 + b - mx_1 - b && \text{(subtracting a sum subtracts each term)} \\
&= mx_2 - mx_1 + b - b && \text{(Theorem 5 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums, swapping } b \text{ and } -m\text{x} \\
&= (mx_2 - mx_1) + (b - b) && \text{(Theorem 6 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums)} \\
&= (mx_2 - mx_1) + 0 && (b - b = 0) \\
&= mx_2 - mx_1 && \text{(Theorem 4 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums)} \\
&= mx_2 + m(-x_1) && (-(mx_1) = m(-x_1), \text{ by Theorem 8 in Equalities, Inequalities and M} \\
&= m(x_2 + (-x_1)) && \text{(Theorem 11 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums, read right to left)} \\
&= m(x_2 - x_1) && \text{(adding a negative is subtracting)}
\end{aligned}
$$

Then, writing $d = x_2 - x_1$, which is not 0 because $x_1 \neq x_2$,

$$
\begin{aligned}
\frac{f(x_2) - f(x_1)}{x_2 - x_1} &= \frac{md}{d} && \text{(the numerator above)} \\
&= (md) \cdot \frac{1}{d} && \text{(Theorem 10 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums)} \\
&= m \cdot \left( d \cdot \frac{1}{d} \right) && \text{(Theorem 9 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums)} \\
&= m \cdot \frac{d}{d} && \text{(Theorem 10 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums)} \\
&= m \cdot 1 && \text{(a nonzero number divided by itself is 1)} \\
&= m && \text{(Theorem 7 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums)}
\end{aligned}
$$

**Part 3.** Part 1, applied to each formula, gives

$$
\begin{aligned}
b &= f(0) \\
&= b'.
\end{aligned}
$$

Part 2 with $x_1 = 0$ and $x_2 = 1$, applied to each formula, gives

$$
\begin{aligned}
m &= f(1) - f(0) \\
&= m'.
\end{aligned}
$$

□

**Example 0.1** (An affine function, and a linear one)**.** $f(x) = 2x + 3$ is affine with slope 2 and intercept 3. By Theorem 0.1, $f(0) = 3$, and each unit step in $x$ raises $f$ by 2: for example, $f(1) = 5$ and $f(2) = 7$. Its intercept is not 0, so it is not linear.
$g(x) = -\frac{1}{2}x$ is affine with intercept 0, so it is linear: $g(0) = 0$, and each unit step in $x$ lowers $g$ by $\frac{1}{2}$.

Remark (Elementary algebra calls $mx + b$ "linear")

*Remark* 0.2 (Elementary algebra calls $mx + b$ "linear"). Elementary algebra usually calls $f(x) = mx + b$ a *linear function*, because its graph is a straight line. This site calls that an affine function and keeps "linear" for the case $b = 0$, because that is the sense used in linear algebra, where a linear map must send 0 to 0 (theorem).

## Limits of sequences

**Definition 0.1** (Limit of a sequence)**.** A real number $L$ is the **limit** of a sequence $(a_n)$ of real numbers [8], written $\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = L$ or $a_n \to L$, if for every $\varepsilon > 0$ there is a natural number $N$ such that

$$|a_n - L| < \varepsilon \quad \text{for every } n \geq N.$$

**Example 0.1** (The limit of a sequence)**.** $a_n = \frac{1}{n}$ has limit 0. Given $\varepsilon > 0$, take $N$ to be any natural number larger than $\frac{1}{\varepsilon}$. For every $n \geq N$, $\left|\frac{1}{n} - 0\right| = \frac{1}{n} \leq \frac{1}{N} < \varepsilon$. For example, with $\varepsilon = 0.01$, take $N = 101$: every $n \geq 101$ has $\frac{1}{n} \leq \frac{1}{101} < 0.01$.

**Definition 0.2** (Convergent sequence (converges))**.** A sequence $(a_n)$ of real numbers **converges** to a real number $L$ if $L$ is its limit (Definition 0.1). A sequence that converges to some real number is **convergent**.

**Example 0.2** (A convergent sequence)**.** $a_n = \frac{1}{n}$ converges to 0, because 0 is its limit (Example 0.1), so $a_n = \frac{1}{n}$ is convergent.

**Definition 0.3** (Divergent sequence (diverges))**.** A sequence that does not converge (Definition 0.2) to any real number **diverges**, and a sequence that diverges is **divergent**.

**Example 0.3** (A divergent sequence)**.** $c_n = n$ diverges. For any real number $L$ and $\varepsilon = 1$, every $n > L + 1$ has $|n - L| > 1$, so no $N$ works. For example, with $L = 5$, every $n \geq 7$ has $|n - 5| \geq 2$. It diverges to $\infty$: for every real number $M$, every $n \geq N$ has $c_n = n > M$ when $N$ is a natural number larger than $M$.

**Definition 0.4** (Divergence of a sequence to infinity)**.** A sequence $(a_n)$ of real numbers **diverges to** $\infty$, written $\lim_{n\to\infty} a_n = \infty$, if for every real number $M$ there is a natural number $N$ such that $a_n > M$ for every $n \geq N$.

## Series

**Definition 0.1** (Non-decreasing sequence)**.** A sequence $a_1, a_2, \ldots$ of real numbers or of extended non-negative reals is **non-decreasing** if each term is at least as large as the one before it:

$$a_n \leq a_{n+1} \quad \text{for every } n \in \mathbb{N}$$

**Example 0.1** (Non-decreasing and not)**.**

- $1, 2, 2, 3, 3, 3, \ldots$ is non-decreasing: a term may equal the one before it.
- $1, 2, \infty, \infty, \ldots$ is non-decreasing, because $\infty$ is greater than every real number.
- $1, \frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{3}, \ldots$ is not non-decreasing, because

$$\begin{aligned} a_2 &= \frac{1}{2} \\ &< 1 \\ &= a_1. \end{aligned}$$

**Definition 0.2.**

**Partial sum**
Let $a_1, a_2, \ldots$ be a sequence of real numbers or of extended non-negative reals. For each $n \in \mathbb{N}$, its $n$th **partial sum** [9] is the sum of its first $n$ terms:

$$s_n \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \sum_{i=1}^{n} a_i = a_1 + \cdots + a_n$$

**Example 0.2** (Partial sums of halves)**.** For $a_i = 1/2^i$, the sequence $\frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{4}, \frac{1}{8}, \ldots$, the first three partial sums are $s_1 = \frac{1}{2}$,

$$s_2 = \frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{4} = \frac{3}{4},$$

and

$$s_3 = \frac{3}{4} + \frac{1}{8} = \frac{7}{8}.$$

In general, $s_n = 1 - 1/2^n$.

**Definition 0.3** (Infinite sum, series)**.** Let $a_1, a_2, \ldots$ be a sequence in $[0, \infty]$, with partial sums $s_n$ (Definition 0.2). The **infinite sum** (also called a **series**) [9] $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} a_i$ is the limit of the partial sums:

$$\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} a_i \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \lim_{n \to \infty} s_n$$

Here the limit is a real number when the partial sums are real numbers that converge to it, and it is $\infty$ when the partial sums diverge to $\infty$ or some partial sum is $\infty$. Sums with other index ranges, such as $\sum_{k=0}^{\infty} a_k$, are defined the same way.

**Example 0.3** (A finite and an infinite sum)**.**

- For $a_i = 1/2^i$, the partial sums $s_n = 1 - 1/2^n$ (Example 0.2) converge to 1, because $1/2^n \to 0$. So $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} 1/2^i = 1$.
- For $a_i = 1$, the partial sums are $s_n = n$, which diverge to $\infty$. So $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} 1 = \infty$.

**Lemma 0.1** (Sums of non-negative terms)**.** *Let $a_1, a_2, \ldots$ be values in $[0, \infty]$, with partial sums $s_n$ (Definition 0.2), where $x + \infty = \infty$ for every $x$ in $[0, \infty]$. Then the partial sums are non-decreasing, $s_1 \leq s_2 \leq \cdots$, so their limit, the infinite sum $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} a_i$ (Definition 0.3), always exists, and it is either a finite number or $\infty$.*

Proof

*Proof.* For each $n$:

$$\begin{aligned} s_{n+1} &= s_n + a_{n+1} && \text{(definition of } s_{n+1}) \\ &\geq s_n && (a_{n+1} \geq 0) \end{aligned}$$

If some partial sum $s_N$ is $\infty$, then $s_n = \infty$ for every $n \geq N$, so the limit is $\infty$. Otherwise, the partial sums form a non-decreasing sequence of real numbers. If that sequence is bounded above, it converges to a finite number [10]. If it is not bounded above, then for every number $M$ some $s_N$ exceeds $M$, and so does every later $s_n \geq s_N$; the limit is $\infty$. □

## Exponentials and Logarithms

**Definition 0.1** (Exponential function)**.** The **exponential function** [11] $\exp : \mathbb{R} \to (0, \infty)$ is

$$\exp\{x\} \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \lim_{n \to \infty} \left(1 + \frac{x}{n}\right)^n,$$

the limit of the sequence $(1 + \frac{x}{1})^1, (1 + \frac{x}{2})^2, (1 + \frac{x}{3})^3, \ldots$. That limit exists for every real number $x$, and it is positive.

**Example 0.1** (Approximating $\exp\{1\}$)**.** For $x = 1$, the terms $\left(1 + \frac{1}{n}\right)^n$ are:

| $n$ | $\left(1 + \frac{1}{n}\right)^n$ |
|---|---|
| 1 | 2 |
| 10 | 2.59374 ... |
| 100 | 2.70481 ... |
| 1000 | 2.71692 ... |

They approach $\exp\{1\} = 2.71828 \ldots$. For $x = 0$, every term is $(1 + 0)^n = 1$, so $\exp\{0\} = 1$.

**Definition 0.2** (Euler's number)**. Euler's number** [12] is

$$e \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \exp\{1\} = 2.71828 \ldots$$

**Example 0.2** (Euler's number is irrational)**.** $e = 2.71828 \ldots$ is an irrational number, so no fraction equals it exactly. The fraction $\frac{19}{7} = 2.714 \ldots$ is close, but $\frac{19}{7} \neq e$ [12].

**Definition 0.3** (Natural logarithm)**.** For a real number $a > 0$, the **natural logarithm** of $a$, written $\log\{a\}$ [13], is the real number $y$ with $\exp\{y\} = a$. The exponential function takes each positive value at exactly one input, so there is exactly one such $y$, and $\log : (0, \infty) \to \mathbb{R}$ is the inverse function of exp (Definition 0.1).

Remark (Other notations for the natural logarithm)

*Remark* 0.1 (Other notations for the natural logarithm)*.* In these notes, $\log\{x\}$ is always the natural logarithm, the logarithm with base $e$ (Definition 0.2) [14]. Some sources write $\ln x$ for the natural logarithm and reserve $\log x$ for the logarithm with base 10.

**Example 0.3** (Natural logarithms)**.**

- $\log\{1\} = 0$, because $\exp\{0\} = 1$ (Example 0.1).
- $\log\{e\} = 1$, because $\exp\{1\} = e$ (Definition 0.2).
- $\log\{0\}$ and $\log\{-2\}$ are not defined, because $\exp\{y\} > 0$ for every real $y$.

**Definition 0.4** (Power with a real exponent)**.** For a real number $a > 0$ and a real number $b$,

$$a^b \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \exp\{b \cdot \log\{a\}\}.$$

When $b$ is an integer, this agrees with Definition 4 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers and Definition 8 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers.

**Example 0.4** (Real powers, and $e^x$)**.**

- $2^3 = \exp\{3 \cdot \log\{2\}\} \approx \exp\{3 \cdot 0.69315\} \approx \exp\{2.07944\} \approx 8$, which agrees with

$$\begin{aligned} 2^3 &= 2 \cdot 2 \cdot 2 \\ &= 8 \end{aligned}$$

  from Definition 4 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers.

- $2^{1/2} = \exp\{\frac{1}{2} \cdot \log\{2\}\} \approx \exp\{0.34657\} \approx 1.41421$, which is $\sqrt{2}$ (Definition 9 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers).

- For every real $x$, with base $e$ (Definition 0.2):

$$
\begin{aligned}
e^x &= \exp\{x \cdot \log\{e\}\} && \text{(Definition 0.4, with } a = e \text{ and } b = x\text{)} \\
&= \exp\{x \cdot 1\} && \text{(}\log\{e\} = 1\text{, by Example 0.3)} \\
&= \exp\{x\} && \text{(Theorem 7 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums)}
\end{aligned}
$$

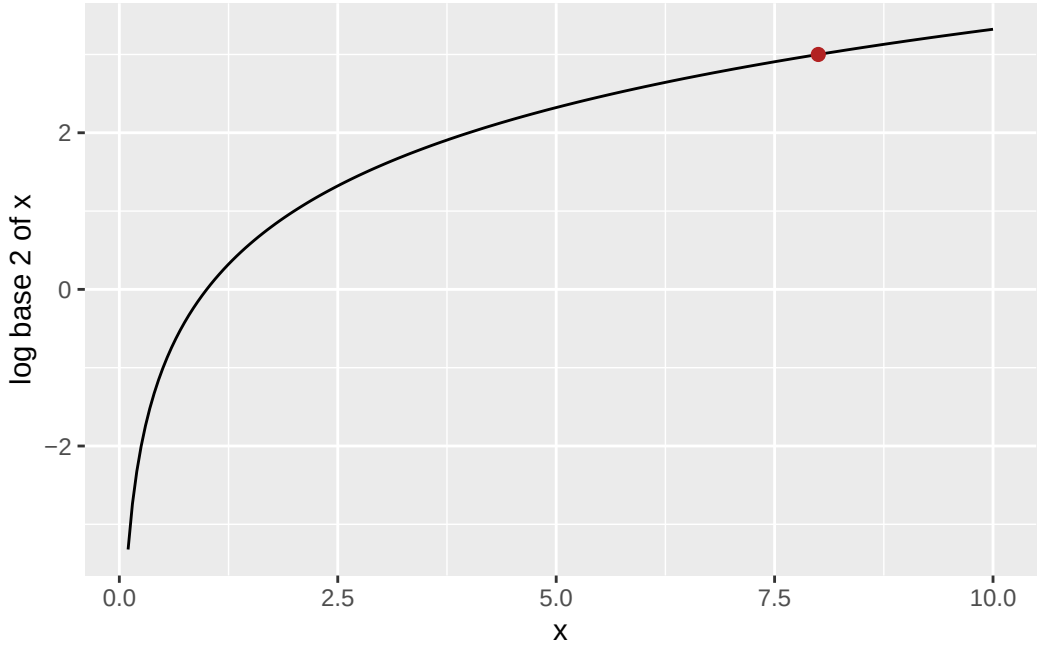
So $e^x$ and $\exp\{x\}$ are two names for the same number.

**Definition 0.5** (Logarithm)**.** Let $b$ be a positive real number with $b \neq 1$. For every real number $x > 0$, the **logarithm** of $x$ to the base $b$ [14], written $\log_b x$, is the real number $y$ for which the real power $b^y$ is $x$.

**Example 0.5** (Logarithms to other bases)**.**

- $\log_2 8 = 3$ by the definition of the logarithm, because $2^3 = 8$.
- $\log_{10} 0.01 = -2$, because $10^{-2} = 0.01$.

The graph of $\log_2 x$ passes through $(8, 3)$, the first of these two facts.




**Definition 0.6** (Real powers of zero and of negative numbers)**.** Definition 4 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers, Definition 8 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers and Definition 0.4 leave some powers $b^c$ with $b \leq 0$ unassigned. We complete them as follows.

- For a real number $c > 0$, $0^c \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} 0$. For a natural number $c$, this agrees with Definition 4 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers.
- For $b < 0$, $b^c$ is defined only when $c$ is an integer, by Definition 4 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers and Definition 8 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers; for $b < 0$ and a non-integer $c$, $b^c$ is undefined.

**Example 0.6** (Powers of zero and of negative numbers)**.**

- $0^{1/2} = 0$, which agrees with $\sqrt{0} = 0$ (Definition 9 in Equalities, Inequalities and Minimizers).
- $(-8)^2 = 64$ and $(-8)^{-1} = -\frac{1}{8}$ are defined, since the exponents are integers.
- $(-8)^{1/3}$ is undefined, even though $(-2)^3 = -8$. R follows the same convention: `(-8)^(1/3)` is `NaN`.

**Theorem 0.1** (exp and log are mutual inverses)**.**

1. *For every $a > 0$:* $\exp\{\log\{a\}\} = a$.
2. *For every $a \in \mathbb{R}$:* $\log\{\exp\{a\}\} = a$.

Remark (The logarithm to base $b$ through the natural logarithm)

*Remark* 0.2 (The logarithm to base $b$ through the natural logarithm). For each $x > 0$, exactly one $y$ satisfies Definition 0.5, and

$$\log_b x = \frac{\log\{x\}}{\log\{b\}}.$$

To see why, note that by Definition 0.4, $b^y = \exp\{y \cdot \log\{b\}\}$, so we need $\exp\{y \cdot \log\{b\}\} = x$. If $y \cdot \log\{b\} = \log\{x\}$, then $\exp\{y \cdot \log\{b\}\} = \exp\{\log\{x\}\} = x$, by part 1 of Theorem 0.1. Conversely, if $\exp\{y \cdot \log\{b\}\} = x$, then applying log to both sides gives $y \cdot \log\{b\} = \log\{x\}$, by part 2 of Theorem 0.1. Since $b \neq 1$, $\log\{b\} \neq 0$, so we can divide by it, and $y = \frac{\log\{x\}}{\log\{b\}}$ is the only solution.

**Theorem 0.2** (Logarithm of a product)**.** *If $a > 0$ and $b > 0$, then*

$$\log\{a \cdot b\} = \log\{a\} + \log\{b\}$$

**Corollary 0.1** (Logarithm of a quotient)**.** *If $a > 0$ and $b > 0$, then*

$$\log\left\{\frac{a}{b}\right\} = \log\{a\} - \log\{b\}$$

Proof

*Proof.* Since $a > 0$ and $b > 0$, the quotient $\frac{a}{b}$ is positive, so Theorem 0.2 applies to the product $\frac{a}{b} \cdot b$:

$$\begin{aligned} \log\{a\} &= \log\left\{\frac{a}{b} \cdot b\right\} && (a = \tfrac{a}{b} \cdot b) \\ &= \log\left\{\frac{a}{b}\right\} + \log\{b\} && \text{(logarithm of a product)} \end{aligned}$$

The second step applies Theorem 0.2. Subtracting $\log\{b\}$ from both sides gives $\log\{a\} - \log\{b\} = \log\{\frac{a}{b}\}$. □

**Theorem 0.3** (Logarithm of a power)**.** *If $a > 0$ and $b \in \mathbb{R}$, then*

$$\log\{a^b\} = b \cdot \log\{a\}$$

**Theorem 0.4** (Exponential of a sum)**.** *The exponential of a sum is equal to the product of the exponentials of its terms:*

$$\exp\{a + b\} = \exp\{a\} \cdot \exp\{b\}$$

**Example 0.7** (Exponential of a sum)**.** With $a = 2$ and $b = 3$, $\exp\{2 + 3\} = \exp\{5\} \approx 148.41$, and $\exp\{2\} \cdot \exp\{3\} \approx 7.3891 \cdot 20.0855 \approx 148.41$.

**Corollary 0.2** (Exponential of a difference)**.** *The exponential of a difference is the exponential of the first term divided by the exponential of the second term:*

$$\exp\{a - b\} = \frac{\exp\{a\}}{\exp\{b\}}$$

**Example 0.8** (Exponential of a difference)**.** With $a = 5$ and $b = 2$, $\exp\{5 - 2\} = \exp\{3\} \approx 20.09$, and $\frac{\exp\{5\}}{\exp\{2\}} \approx \frac{148.4132}{7.3891} \approx 20.09$.

**Theorem 0.5** (Powers of 1 and first powers)**.** *For every $b \in \mathbb{R}$,*

$$1^b = 1,$$

*and for every $a \in \mathbb{R}$,*

$$a^1 = a.$$

**Theorem 0.6** (Power of a sum)**.** *If $a > 0$ and $b, c \in \mathbb{R}$, then*

$$a^{b+c} = a^b \cdot a^c$$

**Example 0.9** (Power of a sum)**.** With $a = 2$, $b = 3$, and $c = 4$,

$$\begin{aligned} 2^{3+4} &= 2^7 \\ &= 128, \end{aligned}$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} 2^3 \cdot 2^4 &= 8 \cdot 16 \\ &= 128. \end{aligned}$$

**Theorem 0.7** (Power of a product)**.** *If $a, b > 0$ and $c \in \mathbb{R}$, then*

$$(ab)^c = a^c \cdot b^c$$

*When $c$ is a positive integer, the same identity holds for all $a, b \in \mathbb{R}$, because both sides are products of $c$ copies of $a$ and $c$ copies of $b$, which can be regrouped by Theorem 8 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums and Theorem 9 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums.*

**Example 0.10** (Power of a product)**.** With $a = 2$, $b = 3$, and $c = 2$,

$$\begin{aligned} (2 \cdot 3)^2 &= 6^2 \\ &= 36, \end{aligned}$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} 2^2 \cdot 3^2 &= 4 \cdot 9 \\ &= 36. \end{aligned}$$

**Theorem 0.8** (Power of a power)**.** *If $a > 0$ and $b, c \in \mathbb{R}$, then*

$$\begin{aligned} a^{bc} &= (a^b)^c \\ &= (a^c)^b \end{aligned}$$

**Example 0.11** (A negative base)**.** With $a = -1$, $b = 2$, and $c = \frac{1}{2}$:

$$\begin{aligned} a^{bc} &= (-1)^{2 \cdot \frac{1}{2}} \\ &= (-1)^1 \\ &= -1 \end{aligned}$$

but

$$\begin{aligned} (a^b)^c &= ((-1)^2)^{\frac{1}{2}} \\ &= 1^{\frac{1}{2}} \\ &= 1 \end{aligned}$$

So $a^{bc} \neq (a^b)^c$ here, which is why Theorem 0.8 requires $a > 0$. The third expression, $(a^c)^b = \left((-1)^{\frac{1}{2}}\right)^2$, is not even a real number.

**Corollary 0.3** (Natural exponential of a product)**.**

$$\begin{aligned} \exp\{ab\} &= (\exp\{a\})^b \\ &= (\exp\{b\})^a \end{aligned}$$

Remark (Tarski's high school identities)

*Remark* 0.3 (Tarski's high school identities). Restricted to positive integers, the following results are Tarski's eleven "high school" identities [15]:

- sums are symmetric and associative (Theorem 5 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums, Theorem 6 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums);
- multiplying by 1 changes nothing, products are symmetric and associative, and multiplication is distributive (Theorem 7 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums, Theorem 8 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums, Theorem 9 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums, Theorem 11 in Convexity, Infimum and Sums);
- $1^b = 1$, $a^1 = a$, and the power of a sum, of a product, and of a power (Theorem 0.5, Theorem 0.6, Theorem 0.7, Theorem 0.8).

Remark (Tarski's identities are not complete)

*Remark* 0.4 (Tarski's identities are not complete). Tarski asked whether every identity in $+$, $\times$, exponentiation and 1 that is true for all positive integers can be derived from the eleven identities in Remark 0.3. It cannot: Wilkie found an identity that is true for all positive integers but does not follow from them. So this list is a useful core, not a complete rulebook.

**Definition 0.7** (Contour line)**.** For a function $g$ of two real variables $b$ and $c$ and a number $k$, the **contour line** [16] of $g$ at height $k$ is the set of points where $g$ equals $k$:

$$\{(b, c) : g(b, c) = k\}$$

**Example 0.12** (Contour lines of a bowl)**.** For $g(b, c) = b^2 + c^2$, the contour line at height $k = 4$ is $\{(b, c) : b^2 + c^2 = 4\}$, the circle of radius 2 around $(0, 0)$: for example,

$$\begin{aligned} g(2, 0) &= 4 + 0 \\ &= 4 \end{aligned}$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} g(0, -2) &= 0 + 4 \\ &= 4. \end{aligned}$$

The contour line at height $k = -1$ is empty, because $b^2 + c^2 \geq 0$ for all $b$ and $c$.

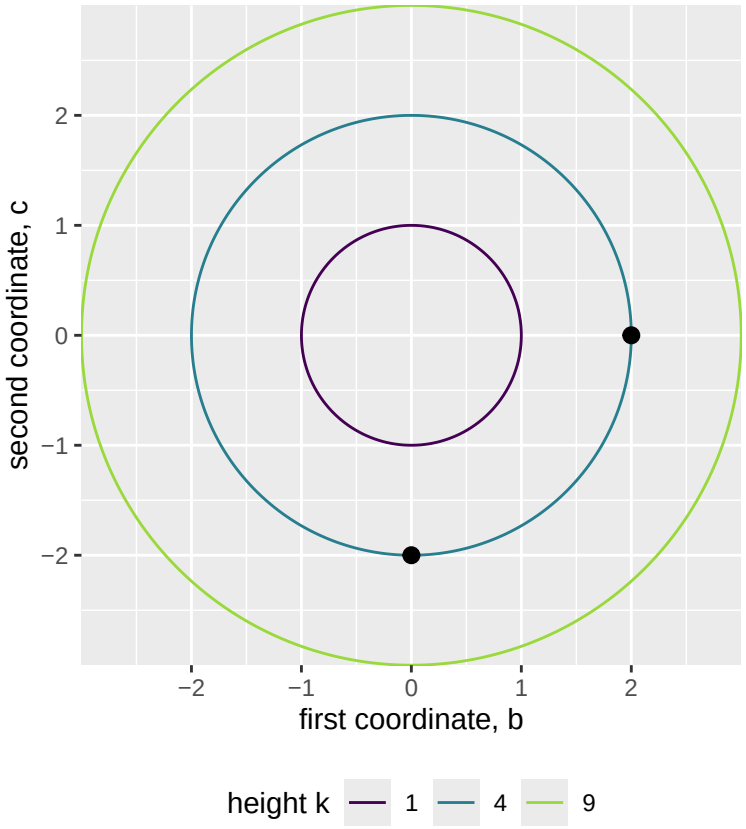



Figure 1: The contour lines of $g(b, c) = b^2 + c^2$ at heights 1, 4 and 9. The dots mark the points $(2, 0)$ and $(0, -2)$ of the example on the circle at height 4.

Remark (Contour lines on a plot of a surface)

*Remark* 0.5 (Contour lines on a plot of a surface). On a plot of the surface $z = g(b, c)$, the contour line is the curve along which the surface has height $k$.

**Exercise 0.1** (Exponentiation versus multiplication)**.** For $b, c \in \mathbb{R}$, when does $b^c = bc$?

Solution

*Solution* 0.1. We only count a pair $(b, c)$ when $b^c$ is defined, so for $b < 0$ we only consider integer $c$ (Definition 0.6). With that convention, $bc = b^c$ in each of the following cases:

1. $c = 1$, for every $b$.

**R**

*(This 3D surface is interactive; see the HTML or slide version of this page to view it.)*

**Python**

```
import matplotlib.pyplot as plt
import numpy as np

cl_b_3d, cl_c_3d = np.meshgrid(np.linspace(-3.5, 3.5, 101),
                               np.linspace(-3.5, 3.5, 101))
cl_g_3d = cl_b_3d**2 + cl_c_3d**2
cl_angle_3d = np.linspace(0, 2 * np.pi, 101)
fig = plt.figure(figsize=(6, 4.5))
ax = fig.add_subplot(projection="3d")
ax.plot_surface(cl_b_3d, cl_c_3d, cl_g_3d, color="#0072B2", alpha=0.6)
for k in [1, 4, 9]:
    ax.plot(np.sqrt(k) * np.cos(cl_angle_3d),
            np.sqrt(k) * np.sin(cl_angle_3d),
            k, color="#D55E00", linewidth=2)
ax.scatter([2, 0], [0, -2], [4, 4], color="black")
ax.set_xlabel("b")
ax.set_ylabel("c")
ax.set_zlabel("g(b, c)")
plt.show();
```

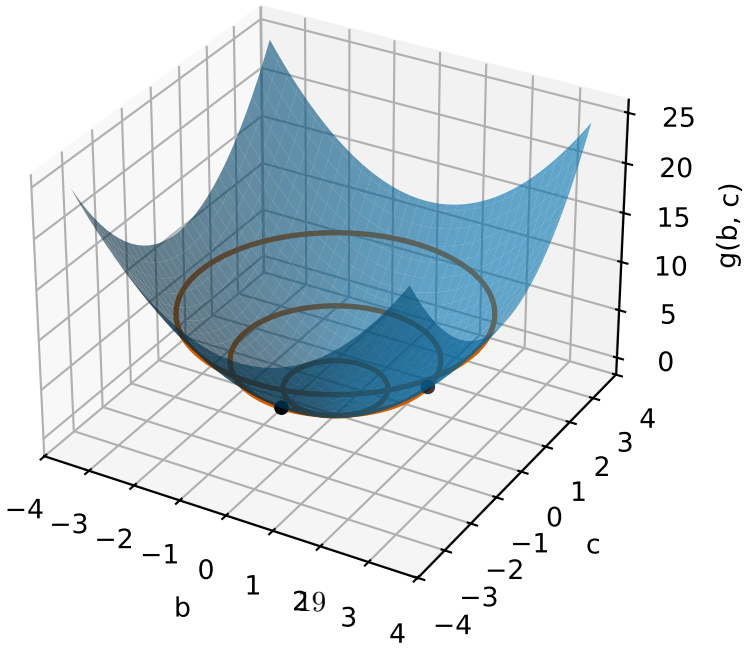



Figure 2: The graph of $g(b, c) = b^2 + c^2$, the surface whose contour lines are in Figure 1. The red circles are the contour lines at heights 1, 4 and 9, and the dots are the points $(2, 0)$ and $(0, -2)$ of Example 0.12 on the one at height 4.

2. $b = 0$ and $c > 0$, since then

$$\begin{aligned} b^c &= 0 \\ &= bc. \end{aligned}$$

($b = 0$ and $c = 0$ fails, since $0^0 = 1 \neq 0$.)

3. $b > 0$, $c > 0$, $c \neq 1$, and $b = \exp\left\{\frac{\log\{c\}}{c-1}\right\}$. For $b > 0$, dividing both sides of $b^c = bc$ by $b$ gives $b^{c-1} = c$, which needs $c > 0$ because $b^{c-1} > 0$; taking logarithms then gives $(c-1)\log\{b\} = \log\{c\}$. For example, $c = 2$ gives $b = 2$, and indeed

$$\begin{aligned} 2^2 &= 4 \\ &= 2 \cdot 2. \end{aligned}$$

4. $b < 0$ and $c$ is an odd integer with $c \geq 3$, with $b = -c^{1/(c-1)}$; for example, $b = -\sqrt{3}$ and $c = 3$ give

$$\begin{aligned} b^c &= -3\sqrt{3} \\ &= bc. \end{aligned}$$

5. $b < 0$ and $c$ is an even integer with $c \leq -2$, with $b = -(-c)^{1/(c-1)}$; for example, $b = -2^{-1/3}$ and $c = -2$ give

$$\begin{aligned} b^c &= 2^{2/3} \\ &= bc. \end{aligned}$$

For $b < 0$, cases 4 and 5 come from $b^{c-1} = c$ as well: when $c - 1$ is even, $b^{c-1} > 0$, so $c$ must be positive; when $c - 1$ is odd, $b^{c-1} < 0$, so $c$ must be negative.
See the red contours in Figure 4 for a visualization of the $b \geq 0$ cases.

*(This 3D surface is interactive; see the HTML or slide version of this page to view it.)*

Figure 3: Graph of $b * c$ and $b^c$

*(This 3D surface is interactive; see the HTML or slide version of this page to view it.)*

Figure 4: **Graph of** $b^c - b * c$. The red contour lines are at heights 0 and 1; the ones at height 0 show where $b^c = b * c$.

**Theorem 0.9** (When exponentiation equals multiplication)**.** *Let $b, c \in \mathbb{R}$, where $b^c$ is defined (for $b < 0$, only integer $c$ is allowed; Definition 0.6). Then $b^c = bc$ if and only if*

*one of the following holds:*

1. $c = 1$;
2. $b = 0$ *and* $c > 0$;
3. $b > 0$, $c > 0$, $c \neq 1$, *and* $b = \exp\left\{\frac{\log\{c\}}{c-1}\right\}$;
4. $b < 0$, $c$ *is an odd integer with* $c \geq 3$, *and* $b = -c^{1/(c-1)}$;
5. $b < 0$, $c$ *is an even integer with* $c \leq -2$, *and* $b = -(-c)^{1/(c-1)}$.

Proof

*Proof.* This is the solution to Exercise 0.1, worked in Solution 0.1. □

**Exercise 0.2** (Repeated exponentiation)**.** For $a \geq 0$, $b, c \in \mathbb{R}$, when does $(a^b)^c = a^{(b^c)}$?

Solution

*Solution* 0.2. Short answer: rarely (that's all you need to know for this course).
Long answer:
Split on whether $a > 0$ or $a = 0$, because the logarithm we use for $a > 0$ is undefined at $a = 0$.
**Case** $a > 0$**.** By Theorem 0.8, $(a^b)^c = a^{bc}$, so the question becomes when $a^{bc} = a^{(b^c)}$ (for pairs $(b, c)$ where $b^c$ is defined). Because $a > 0$, both sides are positive, and we can take logarithms (Theorem 0.3):

$$\begin{aligned} a^{bc} &= a^{(b^c)} \\ \log\{a^{bc}\} &= \log\{a^{(b^c)}\} \quad \text{(take logarithms of both sides)} \\ bc \cdot \log\{a\} &= b^c \cdot \log\{a\} \quad \text{(logarithm of a power)} \end{aligned} \tag{2}$$

The last line of Equation 2 holds exactly when

1. $a = 1$ (so that $\log\{a\} = 0$), or
2. $bc = b^c$ (see Theorem 0.9).

**Case** $a = 0$**.** Here we cannot take logarithms, so we work from the values of powers of 0: $0^s = 0$ for $s > 0$ (Definition 0.6), $0^0 = 1$, and $0^s$ is undefined for $s < 0$.

- If $b < 0$, then $0^b$ is undefined, so $(a^b)^c$ is undefined.
- If $b > 0$, then $(0^b)^c = 0^c$ and $b^c > 0$, so $0^{(b^c)} = 0$; the two sides agree exactly when $c > 0$.
- If $b = 0$, then

$$\begin{aligned}(0^0)^c &= 1^c \\ &= 1;\end{aligned}$$

for $c > 0$,

$$\begin{aligned}0^{(0^c)} &= 0^0 \\ &= 1,\end{aligned}$$

so the two sides agree, and for $c \leq 0$ they do not.

So for $a = 0$, $(a^b)^c = a^{(b^c)}$ exactly when $b \geq 0$ and $c > 0$.
In particular, when $a = 0$, $b \geq 0$, and $c = 0$, the two sides differ:

$$\begin{aligned}(a^b)^c &= (0^b)^0 \\ &= 1\end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}a^{(b^c)} &= 0^{(b^0)} \\ &= 0^1 \\ &= 0\end{aligned}$$

**Theorem 0.10** (When repeated exponentiation is not reordered)**.** *Let $a \geq 0$ and $b, c \in \mathbb{R}$, where $b^c$ is defined. Then $(a^b)^c = a^{(b^c)}$, with both sides defined, if and only if*

- *$a > 0$ and either $a = 1$ or $bc = b^c$; or*
- *$a = 0$, $b \geq 0$, and $c > 0$.*

Proof

*Proof.* This is the solution to Exercise 0.2, worked in Solution 0.2. □


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